

Olympiad Test Paper — Social Science (Class 7) — Paper 4

Chapter 1: Geographical Diversity of India

Paper 4 — (progressively harder)

Subject	Social Science (NCERT Class 7)
Chapter	1 — Geographical Diversity of India
Total Questions	60 (Multiple Choice, single correct)
Maximum Marks	240
Suggested Time	90 minutes

Marking scheme: +4 for each correct answer · -1 for each wrong answer · 0 if unattempted.

Instructions: Each question has four options (A), (B), (C), (D); exactly one is correct. Classic traps: a desert means low rainfall not heat (cold Ladakh qualifies), the towering Himalayas are young and still rising while the worn-low Aravallis are ancient, the tall unbroken Western Ghats sit on the WEST coast while the low river-cut Eastern Ghats sit on the EAST, coral low-lying Lakshadweep (Arabian Sea) must not be swapped with volcanic forested Andaman & Nicobar (Bay of Bengal), and a sediment-built fertile delta is not a funnel-shaped estuary nor a bar-enclosed lagoon. Do not write on this paper — mark answers on your answer sheet.

1. Two students measure the same Himalayan peak ten years apart and find it is taller. A third says the nearby Aravalli summit has instead grown lower over the same human lifetime. Which single statement fits the chapter's physics for BOTH observations?

- (A) Both ranges are rising, but the Himalayas simply rise faster than the Aravallis
- (B) Both ranges are eroding, but the Aravallis erode faster because their rock is harder
- (C) The Himalayas rise from erosion piling rock on top, while the Aravallis sink under their own weight
- (D) The young Himalayas keep rising as the Indian plate pushes north, while the ancient Aravallis keep losing height to erosion faster than any uplift

2. A descending trekker logs, in order: (i) permanent snow and an 8,000 m giant, (ii) cool pine forests and a famous hill town, (iii) gravelly young foothills just above the plain. The three belts crossed are, in this order:

- (A) Himadri, then Himachal, then Shivalik
- (B) Shivalik, then Himachal, then Himadri
- (C) Himachal, then Himadri, then Shivalik
- (D) Himadri, then Shivalik, then Himachal

3. The Himalayas are called the 'Water Tower of Asia.' A farmer in the plains benefits most from this title specifically during:

- (A) the peak monsoon, when the mountains add their stored snow on top of the heavy rain
- (B) the coldest winter weeks, when fresh snow melts immediately and rushes to the plains
- (C) every month equally, because the stored water is released at a constant rate all year
- (D) the hot rainless months, when melting snow and glacier ice keep the rivers flowing even though no rain falls

4. Marine fossils embedded high in Himalayan rock are best used as evidence for which claim within the chapter?

- (A) land now at great height was once the floor of a sea that was folded upward during a plate collision
- (B) the Himalayas were carved by glaciers that froze sea creatures into the peaks
- (C) the present Arabian Sea once rose over the peaks and later drained away
- (D) rivers flowing down from the peaks washed seashells up to the summits over ages

5. Why do the three Himalayan ranges line up as three distinct climate belts rather than sharing one climate?

- (A) each range was raised in a different geological era, freezing in the climate of its time
- (B) each range sits at a different altitude, and air grows colder and thinner with height, so each stays at a different temperature
- (C) each range is built of a different rock that gives off a different amount of heat
- (D) only the lowest range receives sunlight, so the higher two stay permanently dark and cold

6. A geologist notes the Himadri carries the world's tallest peaks while the Aravallis top out near 1,700 m at Mount Abu. The deepest reason rooted in the chapter is that:

- (A) the Aravallis were built from softer rock that could never have stood tall
- (B) the Aravallis are partly submerged, so only their lower stubs show above ground
- (C) the Himalayas are flat-topped plateaus that simply look taller from below
- (D) the Himalayas are young, still-rising fold mountains, while the Aravallis are ancient and have been worn far down by long erosion

7. If the Indian plate suddenly stopped pushing north against Asia, the most likely long-term change to the Himalayas within the chapter's logic would be that they:

- (A) would immediately collapse into the Northern Plains as one event
- (B) would keep rising on their own because tall mountains pull themselves upward
- (C) would stop gaining height and, over very long time, be worn lower by erosion like an old range
- (D) would turn into a desert because rivers would stop flowing from them

8. Drilling on the Northern Plains passes through kilometres of soft sediment before reaching hard rock, but drilling on the Deccan hits hard rock almost at once. The contrast is best explained because the plains:

- (A) sit on a thick sheet of cooled volcanic lava that buried the bedrock
- (B) lie in a long sinking trough that Himalayan rivers have been filling with eroded mountain sediment for ages
- (C) rest on an ancient ice sheet that turned to soft rock over time
- (D) were lifted from the seabed, leaving deep soft sea-mud on the surface

9. Along one river two strips lie side by side: a low strip flooded yearly and a higher older terrace rarely flooded. The chapter's terms and the fertility ranking are:

- (A) the low strip is bhangar and less fertile; the higher terrace is khadar and more fertile
- (B) both strips are khadar and equally fertile because both are alluvium
- (C) the yearly-flooded low strip is khadar and is more fertile; the higher older terrace is bhangar and is less fertile
- (D) the low strip is bhangar and more fertile because old soil holds more nutrients

10. Great cities cluster on the Northern Plains rather than on the rugged Shivalik foothills directly above them. The single best geographic reason is that:

- (A) the foothills receive no rivers, so no settlement is possible there
- (B) flat, well-watered, fertile plains make farming, building and travel easy, while broken hilly terrain makes all three harder
- (C) the foothills are far too hot for people to survive year-round
- (D) the plains are the only land in India that receives any rainfall

11. Place the chain of events that ends in fertile Northern-Plains soil in correct cause-and-effect order:

- (A) silt settles on the plains, then rivers form, then the mountains rise, then erosion begins
- (B) plate collision lifts the Himalayas, rivers erode that rock, rivers carry the silt downstream, silt settles as fertile alluvium on the flat plains
- (C) rivers carry silt south, then the collision lifts the mountains, then the silt grinds the rock away
- (D) the mountains erode away completely, then a sea floods the plains, then the rock rises

12. A farmer on the deep alluvium of the plains and a farmer on the Deccan both have rivers, yet the plains support far denser farming. The deepest soil-based reason is that the plains have:

- (A) deep, soft, renewable alluvium that is easy to plough and very fertile
- (B) thin soil over hard ancient rock that is rich in minerals but hard to till intensively

- (C) salty soil washed in by sea tides that suits only coastal crops
- (D) frozen ground that thaws only in summer, giving a short growing window

13. After a single big flood, the low strip beside a river is MORE fertile than before, while the higher terrace is unchanged. This happens because the flood:

- (A) washes nutrients out of the low strip, while the higher terrace gains them from rain
- (B) deposits only sand and stone on the low strip, leaving it barren afterward
- (C) raises the higher terrace with new silt while scouring the low strip clean
- (D) spreads a fresh layer of nutrient-rich silt over the low strip it reaches, but does not reach the higher terrace

14. Why does the Northern Plains form a single continuous lowland rather than a string of separate basins?

- (A) many Himalayan rivers have spread and merged their alluvium across one long trough in front of the mountains
- (B) a single volcano flooded the whole region with one even sheet of lava
- (C) the sea once covered it and left one flat layer of salt across the land
- (D) glaciers ground the whole region flat in one continuous sweep

15. The Godavari, Krishna and Kaveri all reach the eastern sea, while the Western Ghats stand higher than the Eastern Ghats. Read together, these facts show that the Deccan block:

- (A) slopes down toward the west, so the rivers should be flowing the other way
- (B) is tilted so its western rim stands high and the land slopes gently down toward the east, guiding the rivers eastward
- (C) is perfectly flat, so the river directions are mere coincidence
- (D) rises toward the east, and the rivers are pulled uphill toward the higher Bay of Bengal

16. The Peninsular Plateau is one of India's richest stores of minerals and coal. The explanation rooted in its origin is that it is built of:

- (A) fresh sediment that Himalayan rivers wash onto it from the north each year
- (B) young soft rock that traps minerals quickly within a few human lifetimes
- (C) tidal deposits that the sea lays over its surface at every high tide
- (D) very ancient, hard, stable rock in which minerals and coal accumulated over vast spans of time

17. Why is the Deccan's western rim a tall, almost unbroken wall while its eastern rim is low and chopped into segments?

- (A) the western rim is a young range still rising while the eastern rim is ancient and done rising
- (B) the sea long ago flattened the eastern rim but spared the high western rim

- (C) the two rims are carved from completely different minerals of different hardness
- (D) the block is tilted so its western edge stands high, while east-flowing rivers have cut gaps through the lower eastern edge

18. The dense interior forests of the central plateau are long home to which group, within the chapter's scope?

- (A) the cold-desert herders of Ladakh's high valleys
- (B) the coral-island fishers of the Arabian Sea
- (C) forest-dwelling tribal communities such as the Gond and Bhil
- (D) the mangrove-delta dwellers of the eastern coast

19. Standing on the west coast you see a tall continuous mountain wall; on the east coast you see lower hills broken into gaps. Naming them with their heights, the two walls are:

- (A) the Western Ghats, which are high and nearly unbroken, and the Eastern Ghats, which are lower and cut by rivers
- (B) the Eastern Ghats on the west, high and unbroken, and the Western Ghats on the east, low and broken
- (C) the Himadri on the west coast and the Shivaliks on the east coast
- (D) the Aravallis on the west coast and the Vindhya on the east coast

20. A geologist contrasts the mineral wealth of the Deccan with the farming wealth of the Northern Plains. The single statement that correctly ties each region's wealth to its rock is:

- (A) the plains are rich in minerals from ancient rock, while the plateau is rich for farming from young alluvium
- (B) both regions are rich for the same reason, namely deep alluvium laid by Himalayan rivers
- (C) the plains are rich for farming because of deep young alluvium, while the plateau is rich in minerals because of ancient hard rock
- (D) both regions are rich because the sea deposited minerals and soil across them alike

21. The east coast carries broad fertile deltas while the west coast mostly does not. Combining river length, slope and sea conditions, the reason is that:

- (A) the west coast receives no rain, so its rivers carry no water to build land
- (B) long, gentle east-flowing rivers drop heavy sediment into the calm Bay of Bengal, while short, swift west-flowing rivers carry little into the open, rough Arabian Sea
- (C) the east coast has no rivers at all, only lakes and lagoons
- (D) deltas can form only where the sea water is saltier, and the Bay of Bengal is saltier

22. Two river mouths are compared: one is a branching fan of fertile new land split by channels; the other is a single broad funnel where fresh and salt water mix but little land builds. In order, these are:

- | | |
|------------------------------|--------------------------------------|
| (A) a delta, then an estuary | (B) an estuary, then a delta |
| (C) a lagoon, then a delta | (D) two estuaries of different sizes |

23. Chilika and Pulicat lie along the eastern shore. They are best classified as:

- (A) coral atolls of the Arabian Sea off the west coast
- (B) high glacial lakes in the Himadri range
- (C) volcanic crater lakes on the Deccan Plateau
- (D) coastal lakes and lagoons of the east coast, partly enclosed by bars and spits

24. A coastal plain receives a long, slow, sediment-heavy river emptying into a calm, sheltered sea. The most likely mouth landform, and why, is:

- (A) a narrow estuary, because calm seas always sweep sediment away
- (B) a coral reef, because river mouths are warm and shallow
- (C) a wide delta, because the heavy sediment settles in the calm water and builds new land
- (D) a sand-dune field, because rivers pile up wind-blown sand at their mouths

25. Why does the west coast tend to form coves, creeks and estuaries rather than the great deltas of the east?

- (A) its rivers are short and swift and meet a rough, open sea, so they build little new land at their mouths
- (B) its rivers are the longest and slowest in India, sweeping sediment back out
- (C) it has no rivers reaching the sea at all, only inland lakes
- (D) its sea is too cold for any sediment to settle and build land

26. The Sundarbans and the Royal Bengal Tiger are tied to one landform shared by two countries. That landform and the sharing pair are:

- (A) the Ganga–Brahmaputra delta, shared by India and Myanmar
- (B) the Ganga–Brahmaputra delta, shared by India and Bangladesh
- (C) the Indus delta, shared by India and Pakistan
- (D) the Kaveri delta, shared by India and Sri Lanka

27. Two island groups differ sharply: one is low, flat and ringed by coral; the other is higher, forested and built of volcanic rock. Matching each correctly to its sea, the low coral group is:

- (A) the Andaman & Nicobar Islands, in the Bay of Bengal
- (B) the Lakshadweep Islands, in the Bay of Bengal
- (C) the Lakshadweep Islands, in the Arabian Sea off the southwest coast
- (D) the Andaman & Nicobar Islands, in the Arabian Sea

28. Which single idea best explains WHY one Indian island group is low coral and the other is high volcanic rock?

- (A) one group is simply far older and has worn down into coral
- (B) one group receives monsoon rain and the other receives none

- (C) the two surrounding seas differ only in temperature, which sets the rock type
- (D) how an island forms decides its nature: coral builds up in warm shallow seas, while volcanoes rise where the Earth's plates interact

29. Barren Island, India's only active volcano, sits in one island group. Its presence tells us that that group:

- (A) is the volcanic Andaman & Nicobar group, raised where plates meet in the Bay of Bengal
- (B) is the coral Lakshadweep group in the Arabian Sea
- (C) is a glacial island chain among Himalayan lakes
- (D) is the mangrove Sundarbans of the eastern delta

30. A naturalist wants to study coral reefs that grow only in warm, clear, shallow seas. The correct destination and reason within the chapter are:

- (A) the Andamans, because they are coral islands in the Bay of Bengal
- (B) Lakshadweep, because its islands are coral built up in the warm, shallow Arabian Sea
- (C) the Sundarbans, because coral grows well in mangrove mud
- (D) the Aravalli foothills, because coral forms on ancient worn hills

31. A captain crossing from the Arabian Sea to the Bay of Bengal around peninsular India would pass which island groups, in that order?

- (A) the volcanic Andaman & Nicobar first in the Arabian Sea, then coral Lakshadweep in the Bay of Bengal
- (B) coral Lakshadweep first in the Bay of Bengal, then volcanic Andaman & Nicobar in the Arabian Sea
- (C) both groups in the Arabian Sea, since India's islands all lie to the west
- (D) the coral Lakshadweep first in the Arabian Sea, then the volcanic Andaman & Nicobar in the Bay of Bengal

32. During a rainless April the Ganga still flows strongly while many Deccan rivers shrink to trickles. The cleanest explanation is that the Ganga:

- (A) is fed by melting Himalayan snow and glaciers all year, while the Deccan rivers depend mainly on seasonal rain
- (B) is much shorter, so it loses water more slowly than the Deccan rivers
- (C) is dammed less than the Deccan rivers, which are blocked by the Aravallis
- (D) draws water inland from the sea to keep itself full through the dry months

33. Which contrast between perennial and rain-fed rivers is stated correctly?

- (A) perennial rivers flow only during the monsoon, while rain-fed rivers flow all year
- (B) perennial rivers flow all year on snow and glacier melt, while rain-fed rivers swell in the monsoon and shrink afterward

- (C) perennial rivers exist only in deserts, while rain-fed rivers exist only in mountains
- (D) both kinds carry the same amount of water in every season of the year

34. Most peninsular rivers run east to the Bay of Bengal, but the Narmada and Tapi behave oppositely. Their unusual feature is that they:

- (A) flow north to join the Ganga on the plains
- (B) climb uphill into the crest of the Western Ghats
- (C) flow westward into the Arabian Sea, against the plateau's general eastward slope
- (D) end inland without ever reaching any sea

35. A peninsular river and a Himalayan river both start the dry season full. By late spring the Himalayan one is still strong. The single best reason is the Himalayan river's:

- (A) steady supply of meltwater from mountain snow and glaciers through the warm months
- (B) greater number of lakes that stored the previous monsoon's rain
- (C) shorter overall course, which loses less water to evaporation
- (D) connection to seawater that tides push upstream during spring

36. Why does the Deccan Plateau, despite having many rivers, support less intensive farming than the Northern Plains?

- (A) it has no rivers and almost no soil of any kind
- (B) it is permanently frozen for most of the year
- (C) its soil is thin over hard rock and its rain-fed rivers vary with the seasons, unlike the plains' deep alluvium and steadier water
- (D) it lies below sea level and floods constantly, drowning crops

37. A river that is short, swift and reaches a rough open sea will most likely form which mouth, compared with a long slow river entering a calm sea?

- (A) a larger delta, because swift rivers carry the most sediment
- (B) a coral reef, because fast rivers warm the water at their mouths
- (C) an estuary with little new land, because the rough sea sweeps away the small sediment load
- (D) a lagoon, because swift rivers always cut off a bar of new land

38. A child argues Ladakh cannot be a desert because deserts must be scorching hot. The accurate correction is:

- (A) Ladakh actually receives very heavy rainfall, so the child is half right
- (B) a desert is any region with very low rainfall, so a cold, dry place like Ladakh is a cold desert
- (C) a desert must have tall sand dunes, which Ladakh lacks, so it is not a desert
- (D) a desert must lie below sea level, which Ladakh does not, so it is not a desert

39. Comparing the Thar and Ladakh, which single feature belongs to the COLD desert rather than the hot one?

- (A) high salty lakes such as Pangong Tso, bitterly cold winters, and animals like the snow leopard and ibex
- (B) towering golden sand dunes shaped by hot winds
- (C) taanka and kund tanks built mainly to survive blistering daytime heat
- (D) scorching daytime sand and the complete absence of frost

40. If the Aravalli ridge were leveled by mining, the most likely consequence within the chapter's scope would be that:

- (A) the Himalayas would stop rising once the Aravallis were gone
- (B) the Thar's wind-blown sand would spread further east toward cities like Delhi
- (C) the Ganga would reverse and flow westward
- (D) India would lose its western coastline to the sea

41. Thar villagers scrub pots with sand and harvest rain in taanka and kund tanks. The custom arises chiefly because:

- (A) sand is believed to clean pots better than any amount of water could
- (B) the desert nights are too cold to allow washing with water
- (C) water is so scarce that every drop must be saved, so plentiful sand is used where water would be wasted
- (D) local rules forbid using river water for everyday chores

42. Why does the Aravalli range slow the eastward spread of the Thar's sand so effectively?

- (A) it is extremely tall and snow-capped, chilling the desert winds to a halt
- (B) it is made of loose sand that soaks up the blowing sand like a sponge
- (C) it lies far to the south of the desert and catches the sand only by chance
- (D) it runs as a long ridge along the eastern edge of the desert, physically blocking the wind-blown sand

43. Mount Abu, the only true hill station of its range, marks the highest point of which range?

- (A) the snow-covered Himadri range
- (B) the high western coastal wall, the Western Ghats
- (C) the youngest Shivalik foothills of the Himalayas
- (D) the ancient, worn Aravalli range

44. India lies roughly between 8 degrees and 37 degrees north of the Equator. This north-south spread mainly means that India:

- (A) lies entirely within the cold temperate zone with cool weather throughout
- (B) has the same temperature everywhere because it is one single country

(C) is split between the northern and southern hemispheres

(D) stretches across many latitudes, so its far south is hotter and more tropical than its far north

45. The Tropic of Cancer crosses the middle of India through states such as Gujarat, Madhya Pradesh and West Bengal. A useful consequence for understanding India's climate is that:

(A) the whole of India therefore lies in the temperate zone with cold winters everywhere

(B) the land south of the line lies in the tropics and tends to stay hot all year, while the land north of it has a more seasonal, subtropical climate

(C) places lying exactly on the line never receive overhead sunlight at any time of year

(D) the line marks the physical boundary between the Northern Plains and the Himalayas

46. Because India spans a wide east-west distance, the sun rises noticeably earlier in the far east than in the far west. The chapter uses this to show that India:

(A) is so small that the sun rises everywhere at once

(B) lies entirely within one narrow strip of longitude

(C) has a large longitudinal extent, so the eastern edge sees sunrise well before the western edge

(D) rotates faster in its eastern parts than in its western parts

47. Both the latitudinal and longitudinal extents of India are large. Together they best explain:

(A) India's wide range of climates and the differences in local sunrise time across the land

(B) why all of India shares one identical climate and one sunrise time

(C) why India experiences no seasons at all through the year

(D) why the Himalayas are still slowly rising in the north

48. A student maps India's far north at about 37 degrees N and its far south near 8 degrees N. Which conclusion about temperature follows from latitude alone?

(A) the southern tip, nearer the Equator, tends to be warmer year-round than the northern edge

(B) the northern edge, being at higher latitude, is the warmest part of India

(C) both ends have the same temperature because both lie north of the Equator

(D) the southern tip is colder because it is farther from the Himalayan snows

49. If the Himalayas suddenly vanished, the most likely change to north India's climate within the chapter's logic would be that:

(A) icy dry winds from Central Asia would sweep in and rainfall would drop, because the wall that blocks the cold and traps the monsoon would be gone

(B) north India would turn into a warm coral lagoon

- (C) the region would become a frozen polar desert buried in heavy snow
- (D) nothing would change, since mountains have no effect on climate

50. The windward sea-facing slope of the Western Ghats is drenched while the land just behind the crest is much drier. The best explanation is that:

- (A) the sheltered side is a separate desert with a dry climate unrelated to the Ghats
- (B) the sea-facing slope blocks all sunlight, freezing the back side into a frost zone
- (C) rivers on the back side carry the rain away before it can fall there
- (D) the rising moist winds drop most of their rain on the windward slope, leaving little moisture for the sheltered side behind the crest

51. The Western Ghats soak the west coast and the Khasi hills are among the wettest places on Earth for the SAME basic reason. That shared reason is:

- (A) both regions lie next to large hot deserts that push moisture onto them
- (B) moist monsoon winds are forced to rise over the high ground, cool, and release heavy rain (orographic rainfall)
- (C) both regions are built of coral rock that attracts rain clouds
- (D) both regions lie below sea level where rainwater naturally collects

52. How does relief shape farming differently in the Northern Plains versus the high Himalayas?

- (A) the flat, fertile plains allow wide, intensive crop farming, while the steep, cold mountains limit farming to small terraces and herding
- (B) both regions farm the same crops on the same scale because they share rivers
- (C) the mountains farm more intensively because their cooler air suits crops better
- (D) neither region can support any farming at all

53. Why do large cities and dense populations concentrate in the Northern Plains rather than in the Thar Desert?

- (A) the desert is far too cold for people to survive in
- (B) the plains are the only flat land in the whole of India
- (C) the plains offer fertile soil and reliable river water, while the desert's scarce water and poor soil limit how many people the land can feed
- (D) the desert receives no sunlight for most of the year

54. Despite formidable natural barriers, traders and armies still entered India throughout history. This best shows that the barriers:

- (A) never really existed as barriers at all
- (B) blocked only the flow of rivers, never the movement of people
- (C) were built by people rather than by nature
- (D) made movement harder but did not completely seal the country off

55. Which single combination of features best explains why India developed a distinctive climate and culture, somewhat sheltered from the wider world?

- (A) a scatter of random low hills with no overall pattern
- (B) the natural barriers of the Himalayas, the Thar with the Arabian Sea, and the surrounding oceans, which limited easy movement in and out
- (C) the river deltas of the east coast acting on their own
- (D) the coral reefs of Lakshadweep acting on their own

56. A naturalist finds the snow leopard high in the north, the Royal Bengal Tiger in an eastern mangrove delta, and coral fish around western islands. The best single conclusion is that:

- (A) all Indian animals can live in any region equally well
- (B) wildlife in India does not depend on geography at all
- (C) India's different physical regions give it very different wildlife, each suited to its own habitat
- (D) every region of India is home to the same set of animals

57. India's biodiversity, from snow leopards to mangrove tigers to coral fish, is so rich largely because:

- (A) the whole country has one warm climate that suits all animals alike
- (B) all its animals were brought in from other continents
- (C) it has only one habitat type, which all species share
- (D) its many different physical regions and climates create many different habitats

58. A student must sort 'Ladakh, the Thar, and the Sundarbans' by landform type. The correct grouping is:

- (A) all three are hot deserts of sand and rock
- (B) Ladakh a cold desert, the Thar a hot desert, the Sundarbans a mangrove delta
- (C) all three are river deltas built of silt
- (D) Ladakh and the Thar are deltas, while the Sundarbans is a desert

59. Great rivers like the Ganga are said to UNITE India's very different regions because they:

- (A) give every region exactly the same weather and climate
- (B) physically connect the Himalayas directly to the islands
- (C) link mountains, plains and coasts, carrying people, goods and ideas between distant places
- (D) flatten the whole country into one single uniform plain

60. Pulling the whole chapter together, which statement best summarises how India's geography shapes its life?

- (A) all of India lives the same way because the land is the same everywhere
- (B) only the Himalayas affect how Indians live; the other regions do not

(C) each physical region shapes its own climate, wildlife and way of life, yet rivers and shared history still bind them into one country

(D) geography has no real effect on where or how people live in India

Solutions — Social Science (Class 7), Chapter 1: Geographical Diversity of India — Paper 4

Paper 4 — (progressively harder)

Marking: +4 correct, –1 wrong, 0 unattempted. Maximum marks **240**.

Answer Key

Q	Ans	Q	Ans	Q	Ans	Q	Ans	Q	Ans	Q	Ans
1	D	11	B	21	B	31	D	41	C	51	B
2	A	12	A	22	A	32	A	42	D	52	A
3	D	13	D	23	D	33	B	43	D	53	C
4	A	14	A	24	C	34	C	44	D	54	D
5	B	15	B	25	A	35	A	45	B	55	B
6	D	16	D	26	B	36	C	46	C	56	C
7	C	17	D	27	C	37	C	47	A	57	D
8	B	18	C	28	D	38	B	48	A	58	B
9	C	19	A	29	A	39	A	49	A	59	C
10	B	20	C	30	B	40	B	50	D	60	C

Answer-key distribution: A = 15, B = 15, C = 15, D = 15.

Worked Solutions

1. (D) The Himalayas are young fold mountains still being squeezed upward by the northward-moving Indian plate, so they gain height; the Aravallis are among the oldest ranges, no longer actively uplifting, so erosion steadily wears them lower. Saying both rise is false because the Aravallis are not being uplifted. Saying both erode is false because the Himalayas are net rising, and harder rock would erode slower not faster. Erosion strips rock away rather than piling it on summits, and the Aravallis lose height by wearing, not by sinking.

2. (A) Coming DOWN from the top you meet the highest snow-and-giant-peak Himadri first, then the middle Himachal belt with hill stations and forests, then the youngest, lowest gravel Shivalik foothills last. Shivalik-first reverses the descent (that is the climbing order). Putting Himadri after Himachal misorders the snow zone, which is the highest. Putting Shivalik before Himachal swaps the foothills above the hill-town belt, which is wrong.

3. (D) The 'water tower' matters most in the dry season: winter snow and glacier ice melt in the warm rainless months and feed rivers like the Ganga so they keep flowing without rain. During the monsoon the plains already get abundant rain, so the stored melt is least decisive then. In the coldest weeks snow accumulates rather than melting, so flow is actually low. Release is not constant; it is seasonal, peaking with summer melt, so 'equally all year' is wrong.

4. (A) The fossils are remains of creatures from the old Tethys Sea whose floor was crushed and folded skyward when India collided with Asia, so they record a former sea lifted to height. Glaciers carve and scour rock; they do not source marine fossils. The Arabian Sea is a present ocean to the southwest and never climbed the peaks. Rivers flow downhill, so they cannot carry shells up to summits; the uplift of a seabed is the explanation.

5. (B) The ranges differ in height, and because air cools and thins as altitude rises, the higher Himadri is snow-bound, the middle Himachal mild, and the low Shivalik warm, giving three climate belts. Age of uplift does not 'freeze in' a climate; present temperature depends on present altitude. Rock type does not control regional temperature. All three ranges receive sunlight; the higher two are cold because of altitude, not darkness.

6. (D) Height difference comes from age and uplift: young fold mountains under active squeezing reach great heights, while an ancient range that stopped rising long ago has eroded low. The Aravallis were once high folded rock, not material too soft to ever rise. They are above ground and worn down, not submerged. The Himalayas are true mountains with sharp peaks, not flat plateaus, so the difference is real, not an illusion of viewing angle.

7. (C) Uplift comes from the ongoing collision; remove that push and the range no longer rises, so erosion gradually lowers it the way ancient ranges like the Aravallis have been worn down. Mountains do not collapse instantly without a cause, and the chapter describes gradual processes. Tall mountains have no self-lifting force; rising depends on the plate push. Snow and rain would still feed rivers, so the range would not simply become a desert.

8. (B) The plains occupy a subsiding foredeep trough that rivers have packed with deep alluvium worn off the rising Himalayas, so soft sediment runs very deep. Cooled lava is what underlies the Deccan, not the plains, so that reverses the regions. The chapter describes no buried ice sheet beneath the plains. The plains' fill is river-borne mountain debris, not lifted sea-mud; their depth comes from continual river deposition into a sinking trough.

9. (C) Khadar is the new, light, very fertile silt laid on the low floodplain by each flood; bhangar is the old, higher, less fertile alluvium often with lime nodules. Calling the low strip bhangar and the high one khadar swaps the two terms. They are not equally fertile,

which is the whole point of the contrast. Old bhangar is the LESS fertile one, so calling it more fertile inverts the rule.

10. (B) Level, fertile, river-fed plains favour intensive farming, easy construction and movement, so populations concentrate there, while rough foothills hinder all of these. Rivers do descend through the Shivaliks, so 'no rivers' is false. The foothills are not uninhabitably hot; relief and soil, not heat, drive the choice. Rainfall is not unique to the plains, so that claim is wrong too.

11. (B) Uplift comes first, then erosion produces silt, then rivers transport it, then it is deposited as alluvium; that is the only order where each step has its cause. Silt cannot settle before the mountains and rivers that make it exist. Silt is the product of erosion, not the tool that grinds rock, so that sequence is backwards. The mountains have not eroded away nor has a sea flooded and lifted the plains; that scenario is fiction.

12. (A) The plains' deep, soft, river-renewed alluvium is easy to work and highly fertile, supporting intensive farming. Thin soil over hard rock describes the Deccan, the very region being contrasted, so it is the opposite of the plains. Salty tidal soil belongs to coasts, and frozen ground to high mountains; neither describes the Northern Plains, whose advantage is its renewable alluvium.

13. (D) Floods lay fresh fine silt rich in nutrients on the low floodplain (khadar) they cover, raising its fertility, while the higher bhangar terrace is left untouched. Floods deposit nutrients on the strip they reach rather than washing them out. The fine silt is rich, not barren sand and stone. The flood reaches the low strip, not the higher terrace, so the claim that it raises the terrace and scours the strip reverses what happens.

14. (A) Several great Himalayan rivers have deposited and coalesced their alluvium along one long foredeep trough, building a continuous plain. Volcanic lava built the Deccan, not the plains, so a lava sheet does not apply here. The plain is alluvium from rivers, not a salt layer left by a former sea. Glaciers are confined to high mountains in the chapter and did not sweep the whole lowland flat; rivers and their merging silt made the continuous plain.

15. (B) Rivers run downhill, so a consistent eastward flow plus a higher western rim means the block tilts down to the east, channeling the rivers that way. A westward slope would send the rivers west, contradicting the observed eastward flow. A flat block would not give every major river one consistent direction, so 'coincidence' fails. Water cannot be pulled uphill toward a higher sea; the east is the low end, not the high one.

16. (D) The plateau's old, hard, stable crust has concentrated minerals and coal across enormous time, making it mineral-rich. Himalayan rivers carry silt onto the plains, not fresh ore onto the high plateau. Mineral and coal deposits form over geological ages, not a few lifetimes, so 'young soft rock filling quickly' is wrong. Tides act on coasts, not on the interior plateau surface; the wealth is inherent to ancient rock.

17. (D) The tilt raises the western edge into the high continuous Western Ghats, and the rivers running off the tilt eastward have sliced gaps in the lower Eastern Ghats. Both rims belong to the same ancient block, so 'one young, one ancient' is false. The sea did not flatten the eastern rim; rivers cut it. Mineral type is not the cause; the tilt plus river erosion shapes the two rims.

18. (C) The plateau's forests are home to tribal communities such as the Gond and Bhil. Ladakh's herders live in the northern cold desert, a different region. Coral-island fishers belong to the Lakshadweep group in the Arabian Sea, and mangrove dwellers to the eastern Sundarbans delta; none of these inhabits the central plateau forests.

19. (A) The high, near-continuous west-coast wall is the Western Ghats; the lower hills broken by river gaps on the east are the Eastern Ghats. Swapping their names and locations is the classic Ghats trap. The Himadri and Shivaliks are northern Himalayan ranges, not coastal walls. The Aravallis are an inland northwest range and the Vindhyas a central range, so neither pair names the coastal Ghats.

20. (C) Deep young river-laid alluvium makes the plains a farming region, while ancient hard stable rock makes the plateau a mineral region; each wealth matches its own rock. Swapping the two reverses the geology, since alluvium is the plains' asset and minerals the plateau's. Only the plains have deep alluvium, so 'both for the same reason' is wrong. The sea did not lay minerals and soil across these interior regions; their wealth comes from their own contrasting rock.

21. (B) Long, slow eastward rivers gather and deposit large sediment loads into the calmer Bay of Bengal, building wide deltas, while short, steep west rivers reach the rough open Arabian Sea with little sediment. The west coast does receive heavy monsoon rain, so 'no water' is false. The east coast clearly has major rivers, not only lakes. Sea saltiness does not control delta formation; sediment supply and a calm sea do.

22. (A) The branching fan of new fertile land is a delta; the single funnel where fresh and salt water mingle without building land is an estuary, so the order is delta then estuary. Reversing them mislabels each landform. A lagoon is a shallow water body cut off by a bar, not the branching fan described, so 'lagoon then delta' is wrong. The first mouth builds land, which an estuary does not, so calling both estuaries is false.

23. (D) Chilika and Pulicat are large coastal lakes and lagoons where bars and spits partly enclose seawater along the east coast. Coral atolls belong to the Lakshadweep group in the Arabian Sea, not the east coast. They are not high Himalayan glacial lakes, nor are they volcanic crater lakes on the plateau; their setting is the sea-fringed eastern coast.

24. (C) A heavy sediment load delivered slowly into a calm, sheltered sea settles and accumulates, forming a wide delta. An estuary forms where a river is short and swift or the sea is rough enough to remove sediment; a calm sea does the opposite, so that reasoning is

backwards. Coral reefs grow in clear warm shallow seas, not at silt-choked river mouths. Dunes are wind-built desert features, not river-mouth landforms.

25. (A) Short, fast west-flowing rivers reaching the open, rough Arabian Sea deposit little sediment, producing creeks, coves and estuaries rather than broad deltas. Their rivers are short and swift, not the longest and slowest. Rivers do reach the western sea, so 'no rivers' is false. Sea temperature is not the controlling factor; river length, speed and the open rough sea are.

26. (B) The Sundarbans mangroves and the Royal Bengal Tiger lie in the Ganga–Brahmaputra delta, which India shares with Bangladesh. Myanmar lies to the east and does not share this delta. The Indus delta in the northwest borders Pakistan but is not the tiger's mangrove home. The Kaveri delta is in the far south and is not the shared mangrove delta described.

27. (C) The low, flat coral islands are Lakshadweep, lying in the Arabian Sea off the southwest. The Andaman & Nicobar group is the higher volcanic one in the Bay of Bengal, so naming it as coral is wrong. Lakshadweep is not in the Bay of Bengal, and the Andamans are not in the Arabian Sea; the formation must match the location.

28. (D) The contrast follows from origin: coral reefs build the low Lakshadweep in warm shallow seas, while volcanic activity raises the higher Andaman & Nicobar Islands at a plate setting. Age alone does not turn volcanic rock into coral. Both groups receive rain, so rainfall is not the cause. A slight sea-temperature difference does not decide rock type; the formation process does.

29. (A) Barren Island, India's only active volcano, lies in the Andaman & Nicobar group, confirming its volcanic origin at a plate boundary in the Bay of Bengal. The coral Lakshadweep islands have no active volcano. There is no glacial island chain in Himalayan lakes in the chapter. The Sundarbans are a mangrove delta, not a volcanic island group; the volcano marks the Andamans.

30. (B) Coral thrives in warm, clear, shallow water, and Lakshadweep is exactly such a coral group in the Arabian Sea. The Andamans are volcanic, not coral, so they do not fit. The Sundarbans are muddy mangrove delta where coral islands do not build. The Aravallis are an inland hill range, not islands at all; only Lakshadweep matches the coral conditions.

31. (D) Lakshadweep (coral) lies in the Arabian Sea to the west and the Andaman & Nicobar group (volcanic) lies in the Bay of Bengal to the east, so crossing west to east meets Lakshadweep first. Placing the volcanic Andamans in the Arabian Sea swaps both group and sea. Saying Lakshadweep is in the Bay of Bengal again misplaces the seas. The two groups sit on opposite sides of the peninsula, so 'both in the Arabian Sea' is false.

32. (A) Snow- and glacier-fed Himalayan rivers like the Ganga receive meltwater even in the rainless season, so they stay full, while rain-fed peninsular rivers fall low without rain.

The Ganga is long, not short, so length is not the reason. The Aravallis do not dam the Deccan rivers, which lie far to the south. Rivers flow to the sea and do not draw water inland from it; the difference is the source of supply.

33. (B) Perennial rivers fed by melting snow and glaciers flow year-round, while rain-fed rivers depend on the monsoon and dwindle afterward. Reversing those patterns is wrong. Perennial rivers are snow-fed mountain rivers, not desert features, so that pairing fails. The two types clearly differ by season, so claiming identical year-round flow contradicts the definition.

34. (C) The Narmada and Tapti are exceptions because they flow west into the Arabian Sea, opposite the usual eastward drainage of the tilted plateau. They do not turn north to the Ganga. Rivers cannot climb uphill into the Ghats. Both reach the sea, so 'end inland' is false; their distinction is the westward course.

35. (A) The Himalayan river keeps flowing because melting snow and glaciers feed it continuously through the warm season, independent of rain. Stored-lake rain is not the chapter's reason for sustained Himalayan flow. A shorter course is not it, and Himalayan rivers are in fact long. Tidal seawater does not push upstream to sustain a freshwater river; meltwater does.

36. (C) Thin soil over hard ancient rock and seasonally varying rain-fed rivers limit intensive farming on the Deccan, in contrast with the plains' deep alluvium and snow-fed steadier water. The Deccan does have rivers and soil, just less favourable ones. It is not frozen year-round; it is a warm plateau. It is a raised plateau, not below sea level, so constant flooding does not apply.

37. (C) A short, swift river with a small sediment load meeting a rough open sea has its sediment swept away, so it forms an estuary rather than building land. A delta needs heavy sediment dropped into a calm sea, the opposite of a swift river in a rough sea, so 'larger delta' is wrong. Coral reefs need clear warm shallow seas, not turbulent river mouths. Lagoons form behind bars and spits, not from a river's speed.

38. (B) Deserts are defined by very low rainfall, not by heat, so high, cold, dry Ladakh qualifies as a cold desert. Ladakh is dry, not heavily rained on, so 'half right' is false. Sand dunes are common in hot deserts but are not required for a region to be a desert. Elevation relative to sea level is irrelevant; rainfall is the key test.

39. (A) Ladakh, the cold desert, has high salt lakes, severe winters and high-altitude animals such as the snow leopard and ibex. Tall golden dunes, heat-coping water tanks and scorching frost-free sand all describe the hot Thar, not Ladakh. Both are deserts by low rainfall, but their temperature and features differ, so the cold-desert traits are the salt lakes, deep cold and snow leopard.

40. (B) The Aravallis form a long ridge on the desert's eastern flank that blocks wind-driven sand, so removing them would let the Thar's sand spread east toward Delhi. The Himalayas rise from plate collision, unrelated to the Aravallis. The Ganga's course follows the plains' eastward slope, not these hills. The western coastline is a distant sea boundary unaffected by the Aravallis.

41. (C) In the dry Thar water is precious, so people clean with abundant sand and store scarce rain in tanks; the practice is born of scarcity. It is not a belief that sand outcleans water. Cold nights are not the reason in the hot Thar. No rule bans river water; the point is that very little water is available, so it is conserved.

42. (D) The Aravallis act as a long ridge along the desert's eastern flank, standing in the path of wind-driven sand. They are low and worn, not tall and snow-capped, so chilling winds is not the mechanism. They are folded rock, not loose absorbing sand. They lie along the eastern edge, not far to the south; their position and ridge form are what block the sand.

43. (D) Mount Abu is the highest point of the old, worn-low Aravalli range. The Himadri carries giant snow peaks far higher than Mount Abu, so it is not that range's high point. The Western Ghats are a separate southern coastal wall, and the Shivaliks are northern Himalayan foothills; Mount Abu belongs to the Aravallis.

44. (D) A wide latitudinal spread makes the lower-latitude south warmer and more tropical and the higher-latitude north cooler, giving varied climate. India does not sit wholly in a cold temperate zone. Being one country does not make temperatures uniform; latitude varies them. India lies entirely north of the Equator, so it is not split across hemispheres.

45. (B) The Tropic of Cancer is the northern edge of the belt where the Sun can be overhead; land to its south is tropical and warm all year, land to its north subtropical with sharper seasons, and the line crosses India's middle. India is not wholly temperate, since its south is tropical. Points on the Tropic do get overhead Sun around the June solstice, so 'never' is false. The Tropic is a latitude line, not a relief boundary between plains and mountains.

46. (C) A broad longitudinal extent means the eastern parts greet sunrise earlier than the western parts, since the Earth turns west to east. India is large, not small, so sunrise is not simultaneous everywhere. It does not occupy a single narrow longitude. The Earth turns as one body; the east does not spin faster, the difference comes from longitude.

47. (A) A large latitudinal spread gives climates from tropical south to cooler north, and a large longitudinal spread gives differing local sunrise times, so the two extents explain India's climatic variety and time differences. They do not produce one identical climate or

one sunrise time. India clearly has seasons, so 'no seasons' is wrong. The rising Himalayas come from plate collision, not from the country's extent.

48. (A) Places nearer the Equator receive more direct sunlight, so the low-latitude south is warmer year-round than the high-latitude north; that is the effect of latitude alone. Higher latitude means cooler, not warmest, so the northern edge being warmest is wrong. Lying north of the Equator does not equalise temperature across 29 degrees of latitude. Distance from Himalayan snow is not a latitude effect, and the south is warmer, not colder.

49. (A) The Himalayas block frigid Central Asian winds and trap the rain-bearing monsoon; removing them would let in cold dry winds and reduce northern rainfall. A coral lagoon is a tropical sea feature, not a result of losing mountains. The region would be drier and colder in winter, but the chapter does not predict a heavy-snow polar desert. Mountains clearly shape climate, so 'nothing changes' is false.

50. (D) As moist winds climb the windward slope they cool and rain heavily; having shed their moisture, the air gives little rain to the sheltered side, drying it. The dry interior is a consequence of the Ghats, not an unrelated desert. The slope does not freeze the back by blocking sunlight; the cause is moisture loss. Rivers move water after it falls, not the rain still in the air, so they do not create the dry zone.

51. (B) In both places humid monsoon air is pushed up the slopes, cools, and releases heavy rain, the orographic effect. Neither owes its rain to a neighbouring desert. Neither is built of coral, and rock type does not attract rain. Both are uplands, not below-sea-level basins; rising, cooling moist air is the shared mechanism.

52. (A) Flat, fertile, well-watered plains support large-scale intensive cropping, while steep, cold, thin-soiled mountains permit only small terraces and herding. Shared rivers do not make their farming identical, since relief and climate differ greatly. Cooler mountains do not farm more intensively than the plains; the rugged cold limits them. Both regions do support some farming, so 'neither can' is false.

53. (C) Abundant river water and fertile alluvium let the plains feed dense populations, while the dry Thar's scarce water and poor soil support far fewer people. The Thar is hot, not too cold to inhabit. The plains are not the only flat land; the Deccan and coasts include flat areas. The desert is sunny, not sunless; water and soil, not sunlight, are the limiting factors.

54. (D) The barriers slowed but did not fully prevent contact, since traders and invaders found passes and sea routes through them. They certainly existed, so denying them is wrong. They restricted people's movement, not just rivers. They are natural features such as mountains and seas, not human-made walls; their effect was to hinder, not to seal.

55. (B) Together the Himalayas, the Thar plus the Arabian Sea, and the encircling oceans limited easy entry, helping India develop a distinct climate and culture. Random scattered

hills form no such frame. The east-coast deltas alone are far too small a feature to shelter a subcontinent. The Lakshadweep reefs are tiny and remote; it is the great outer barriers acting together that matter.

56. (C) Each animal lives where the region's relief and climate suit it, the snow leopard in cold mountains, the tiger in warm mangroves, coral fish in warm seas, showing geography shapes wildlife. The species are clearly specialised, so they cannot live anywhere equally well. Wildlife depends strongly on geography, and the regions do not share the same animals; their habitats differ.

57. (D) Varied regions, from cold mountains to hot deserts, wet deltas and warm reefs, offer many habitats, supporting a wide variety of life. India does not have one uniform warm climate; its climates differ greatly. Its rich native wildlife is not all imported. Far from one shared habitat, it has many, which is exactly why biodiversity is high.

58. (B) Ladakh is a high cold desert, the Thar a hot sandy desert, and the Sundarbans a mangrove forest in a river delta, so each is a different type. They are not all hot deserts, since Ladakh is cold and the Sundarbans is a wet delta. They are not all deltas, since the two deserts are dry. Calling the deserts deltas and the delta a desert reverses the facts.

59. (C) Rivers flow from the mountains through the plains to the coasts, moving people, trade and ideas across regions and binding them together. They do not give all regions identical weather; climate still varies. They do not connect the mountains to the distant islands. They water and link the land but do not flatten the country into one plain; their uniting role is as routes of connection.

60. (C) Mountains, plains, desert, plateau, coasts and islands each shape distinct climates, wildlife and lifestyles, while rivers and shared history tie them into one nation, the chapter's full message. The land is not the same everywhere, so lives differ. It is not only the Himalayas that matter; every region does. Geography clearly influences where and how people live, so 'no effect' is false.